Math- 435

Alexander Santos

From Classical Encryption to Post-Quantum Security: A Study of Lattice-Based Cryptography

Scope of the Project

Cryptography has become one of the most essential fields in modern information security, underpinning the protection of digital communication, financial transactions, and sensitive data across global networks. As society increasingly relies on digital systems, the need for secure methods of transmitting and storing information continues to grow. Cryptography provides the mathematical and computational tools necessary to ensure confidentiality, integrity, and authenticity in communication.

Historically, cryptography evolved from simple techniques designed to obscure messages into a highly sophisticated discipline grounded in advanced mathematics. Early methods, such as substitution and transposition ciphers, laid the foundation for modern encryption systems. Over time, the field expanded to incorporate concepts from number theory, algebra, probability, and computational complexity, transforming cryptography into a critical area of applied mathematics.

In recent decades, the rapid advancement of computing technology has significantly influenced the development of cryptographic systems. Classical encryption methods, including widely used public-key systems, rely on mathematical problems that are computationally difficult for traditional computers to solve. However, the emergence of quantum computing presents a major challenge to these systems, as quantum algorithms have the potential to efficiently solve problems that were previously considered intractable.

This development has led to the growing importance of post-quantum cryptography, which seeks to design encryption methods that remain secure even in the presence of quantum computers. Among the most promising approaches is lattice-based cryptography, which is built upon complex geometric structures and computational problems that are believed to be resistant to both classical and quantum attacks.

This study explores the evolution of cryptography from its historical origins to its modern mathematical foundations, with a particular focus on lattice-based cryptography. It aims to bridge the gap between historical understanding and mathematical theory while examining the role of cryptography in addressing emerging challenges in the quantum era.

Chapter One: Introduction

1.1 Background of Study

Cryptography is the science of secure communication. It has played a vital role in human civilization for centuries. From ancient military communications to modern digital transactions, the need to protect sensitive information has driven the continuous evolution of encryption techniques. Historically, cryptography emerged as a practical response to the threat of interception, allowing messages to be transmitted securely even in hostile environments.

The earliest forms of cryptography can be traced back to ancient civilizations such as Egypt, Greece, and Rome. The Spartans employed the scytale, a transposition cipher that involved wrapping a strip of parchment around a cylindrical rod. Only someone possessing a rod of identical diameter could reconstruct the original message. Later, Julius Caesar popularized substitution ciphers by shifting letters of the alphabet by a fixed number of positions, creating what is now known as the Caesar cipher. This simple yet effective technique became one of the earliest systematic encryption methods.

One of the earliest and most well-known classical encryption methods is the Cesar cipher, attributed to Julius Ceaser. This substitution cipher involves shifting each letter of the alphabet by a fixed number of positions. Although simple by modern standards, the Ceaser cipher provides an excellent foundation for understanding mathematical principles underlying encryption, particularly modular arithmetic and permutations.

The development of cryptanalysis, the art of breaking codes, followed closely behind the invention of ciphers. In the ninth century, the Araba mathematician Al-Kindi pioneered frequency analysis, a technique that exploits statistical patterns in langue to decrypt substitution ciphers. This breakthrough established the connection between mathematics, linguistics, and secure communication.

The Renaissance and Elizabethan eras witnessed the increased use of cryptography in political intrigue and espionage. A famous example is Mary, Queen of Scots, whose encrypted correspondence was intercepted and deciphered by agents of Queen Elizabeth I. The successful decryption of her messages ultimately led to her execution in 1587, highlighting the immense political consequences of cryptographic security and failure.

The twentieth century brought unprecedented developments in cryptography, particularly during the two World Wars. The invention of the Enigma machine by Arthur Scherbius revolutionized encryption by automating the substitution process through rotating electromechanical rotors. Its enormous number of possible settings made it appear unbreakable. However, the brilliant work of mathematicians and cryptanalysts at Bletchley Park, especially Alan Turing, led to the successful decryption of Enigma-encrypted communications. This achievement significantly shortened World War II and demonstrated the strategic value of mathematical intelligence.

The post-war era saw cryptography transition from military and diplomatic use into the commercial and civilian sectors. The rise in computers introduced entirely new possibilities for encryption. Algorithms such as the Data Encryption Standard (DES) employed binary arithmetic and complex mathematical transformations to secure electronic data. As computational power increased, stronger standards such as the Advanced Encryption Standard (AES) were developed to meet growing security demands.

A landmark breakthrough occurred in the 1970s with the invention of public-key cryptography by Whitfield Diffie, Martin Hellman, and later Ronald Rivest, Adi Shamir, and Leonard Adleman. Unlike traditional symmetric systems, public-key cryptography allows secure communication between parties who have never previously shared a secret key. This innovation made secure online transactions, digital signatures, and modern e-commerce possible.

In the modern era, cryptography has become indispensable to everyday life. Securing online banking, e-commerce, mobile communications, digital signatures, and data privacy all rely on sophisticated cryptographic algorithms. Unlike classical ciphers and data privacy rely on sophisticated cryptographic algorithms. Unlike classical ciphers, modern encryption employs advanced mathematical concepts such as number theory, prime factorization, modular exponentiation, and computational complexity.

Beyond its practical applications, cryptography offers a compelling demonstration of the power of mathematics. It transforms abstract concepts into tools that safeguard privacy, secure commerce, and protect national interests. Its rich historical development—from Caesar's military campaigns to internet encryption—illustrates the enduring relationship between mathematics, technology, and society.

As the Information Age continues to evolve, cryptography remains one of the most important and dynamic fields of applied mathematics, shaping the security and privacy of individuals, organizations, and nations worldwide.

1.2 Statement of the Problem

As digital communication expands, the protection of information has become increasingly critical. Despite widespread reliance on cryptographic systems, many students and practitioners lack a clear understanding of the mathematical principles that make these systems secure. Furthermore, the historical progression from simple substitution ciphers to modern public-key encryption is often insufficiently explored in educational settings.

This gap limits appreciation for both the theoretical foundations and practical applications of cryptography. Therefore, there is a need to examine cryptography as a mathematical discipline, tracing its historical development while highlighting its relevance in contemporary technology.

1.3 Aim and Objectives of the Study

To analyze the mathematical foundations of lattice-based cryptography and evaluate its role in securing communication against quantum computing threats.

Objectives

1. To examine the historical development of cryptography
2. To explain the mathematical structure of lattices
3. To analyze hard lattice problems such as SVP and CVP
4. To explore the Learning With Errors (LWE) problem
5. To evaluate the impact of quantum computing on cryptographic systems
6. To assess lattice-based cryptography as a post-quantum solution

CHAPTER TWO: LITERATURE REVIEW

2.1 Introduction

This chapter reviews existing literature on the development of cryptography, the mathematical foundations of lattice-based cryptography, and the emergence of quantum-resistant encryption methods. The purpose is to situate this study within established research while identifying key contributions and gaps in understanding.

2.2 Historical Development of Cryptography

The evolution of cryptography has been extensively documented, showing a transition from simple manual techniques to complex mathematical systems. Early cryptographic methods, such as substitution and transposition ciphers, laid the groundwork for modern encryption.

According to historical analyses of cryptography, classical systems like the Caesar cipher and the Spartan scytale relied on basic transformations of text and were primarily designed for military use. These early systems, while effective for their time, lacked resistance to systematic cryptanalysis.

The work of Al-Kindi marked a major turning point in cryptography. His development of frequency analysis demonstrated that encrypted messages could be broken using statistical methods, establishing cryptanalysis as a mathematical discipline.

During the twentieth century, cryptography advanced significantly with the introduction of mechanical encryption systems such as the Enigma machine. Although initially considered secure, it was eventually broken through mathematical analysis and computational techniques, particularly by Alan Turing and his colleagues.

Modern cryptography emerged with the development of public-key systems in the 1970s by Whitfield Diffie and Martin Hellman, followed by RSA. These systems introduced a new paradigm based on mathematical problems rather than simple substitution techniques.

2.3 Lattice-Based Cryptography

Recent research has focused on lattice-based cryptography as a promising alternative to classical systems. According to A Decade of Lattice Cryptography, lattices provide a rich mathematical structure that supports secure encryption schemes based on hard computational problems.

Lattice-based cryptography relies on problems such as the Shortest Vector Problem (SVP) and the Closest Vector Problem (CVP), which are believed to be computationally infeasible in high-dimensional spaces. These problems differ fundamentally from those used in classical cryptography, such as integer factorization.

One of the most important developments in this area is the Learning With Errors (LWE) problem, introduced by Oded Regev. LWE has been shown to have strong theoretical foundations, with security based on worst-case lattice problems. This makes it particularly attractive for cryptographic applications.

Peikert (2016) emphasizes that lattice-based systems combine efficiency with strong security guarantees, making them suitable for practical implementation. Additionally, these systems are supported by rigorous mathematical proofs, unlike many earlier cryptographic constructions.

2.4 Cryptography in the Age of Quantum Computing

The emergence of quantum computing presents a significant challenge to traditional cryptographic systems. Algorithms developed by Peter Shor demonstrate that problems such as integer factorization and discrete logarithms can be solved efficiently on a quantum computer. This threatens widely used systems such as RSA and elliptic curve cryptography.

As a result, researchers have turned to post-quantum cryptography, which focuses on developing systems that remain secure against quantum attacks. Lattice-based cryptography is considered one of the most promising approaches in this field.

Organizations such as the National Institute of Standards and Technology have initiated efforts to standardize post-quantum cryptographic algorithms. These include lattice-based schemes such as ML-KEM and ML-DSA, which are designed to withstand both classical and quantum attacks.

2.5 Research Gap

Despite the growing body of research on cryptography, several gaps remain. Many studies focus either on the historical development of cryptography or on advanced mathematical theories, but few integrate both perspectives into a unified analysis.

Additionally, while lattice-based cryptography has been widely studied in academic literature, its mathematical foundations are often presented in highly technical terms, making them difficult for students and non-specialists to understand.

This study aims to bridge this gap by combining historical context, mathematical explanation, and modern applications, particularly in relation to quantum computing.

2.6 Chapter Summary

This chapter reviewed the evolution of cryptography from classical to modern systems, highlighting key developments in cryptanalysis and encryption. It also examined the emergence of lattice-based cryptography and its significance in the context of quantum computing. The review identified a gap in the integration of historical and mathematical perspectives, which this study seeks to address.

CHAPTER THREE: MATHEMATICAL FOUNDATIONS OF LATTICE-BASED CRYPTOGRAPHY

3.1 Introduction

This chapter presents the mathematical foundations underlying lattice based. cryptography. It develops the formal definition of lattices, explores their geometric and algebraic properties, and examines the computational problems that form the basis of modern cryptographic security. Additionally, it connects these concepts to quantum-resistant cryptographic systems.

3.2 Definition and Structure of Lattices

A lattice is a fundamental structure in algebra, geometry, and number theory, forming the backbone of modern post-quantum cryptography. Formally, a lattice is defined as a discrete additive subgroup of Euclidean space.

This definition incorporates three essential properties. First, it is a subgroup, meaning that the sum and difference of any two lattice points remain within the lattice. Second, it is additive, with vector addition as the group operation. Third, it is discreet, ensuring that lattice points are isolated and not arbitrarily close together.

Let $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ be a matrix whose columns $b_1, b_2, \dots, b_n$ are linearly independent vectors. The lattice generated by this basis is defined as:

$$\Lambda(B) = \{Bz : z \in \mathbb{Z}^n\} = \left\{\sum_{i=1}^{n} z_i\, b_i \mid z_i \in \mathbb{Z}\right\}$$

Each lattice point is obtained as an integer linear combination of basis vectors. The vector $z \in \mathbb{Z}^n$ serves as a coordinate representation relative to the basis B.

3.3 Example of a Two-Dimensional Lattice

To illustrate, consider the basis vectors:

$$b_1 = \binom{2}{1}, b_2 = \binom{1}{3}$$

A general lattice point is:

$$x = z_1 b_1 + z_2 b_2 = \binom{2z_1 + z_2}{z_1 + 3z_2}, z_1, z_2 \in \mathbb{Z}$$

For example, choosing $z_1 = 2, z_2 = -1$ yields:

$$x = \binom{3}{-1}$$

This process generates an infinite grid of points in the plane.

3.4 Geometric Properties of Lattices

A defining feature of lattices is discreteness. For any two points $x, y \in \Lambda$, their difference satisfies:

$$x - y = B(z - w)$$

where $z, w \in \mathbb{Z}^n$. Because the basis vectors are linearly independent, lattice points cannot cluster arbitrarily close together.

Another key concept is the fundamental parallelepiped, defined as:

$$P(B) = \{Bx : x \in [0,1)^n\}$$

This region tiles the entire space without overlapping. Every vector $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$can be uniquely decomposed as:

$$y = v + p, v \in \Lambda, \, p \in P(B)$$

3.5 Determinant and Density

The volume of the fundamental region is called the determinant of the lattice:

$$\det(\Lambda) = |\det(B)|$$

For the example matrix:

$$B = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

we compute:

$$\det(B) = 2 \cdot 3 - 1 \cdot 1 = 5$$

This value measures how densely lattice points are distributed.

3.6 Basis Transformations and the Gram Matrix

A lattice can have infinitely many bases. If $U \in GL_n(\mathbb{Z})$, then:

$$\Lambda(B) = \Lambda(BU)$$

The Gram matrix captures geometric relationships:

$$G = B^T B$$

with entries:

$$G_{ij} = \langle b_i, b_j \rangle$$

Angles between vectors are given by:

$$\cos\ \theta_{ij} = \frac{\langle b_i, b_j \rangle}{\| b_i \| \| b_j \|}$$

3.7 Computational Problems in Lattices

The security of lattice-based cryptography relies on hard computational problems:

Shortest Vector Problem (SVP)

$$\lambda_1(\Lambda) = \min_{v \in \Lambda \setminus \{0\}} \| v \|$$

Closest Vector Problem (CVP)

$$\text{CVP}(t) = \arg\ \min_{v \in \Lambda}\ \| t - v \|$$

Both problems become extremely difficult in high dimensions.

3.8 Dual Lattices and Gaussian Distributions

The dual lattice is defined as:

$$\Lambda^* = \{y : \langle x, y \rangle \in \mathbb{Z}\ \forall x \in \Lambda\}$$

If $B$is a basis, then:

$$B^* = (B^{-1})^T$$

A key probability distribution is the discrete Gaussian:

$$\rho_s(x) = \exp\left(\quad -\pi \frac{\| x \|^2}{s^2}\right)$$
$$D_{\Lambda,s}(x) = \frac{\rho_s(x)}{\sum_{y \in \Lambda} \rho_s\,(y)}$$

3.9 Learning with Errors (LWE)

One of the most important constructions is the Learning With Errors problem, introduced by Oded Regev.

$$b = As + e(\mathrm{mod} q)$$

The addition of the error term $e$transforms an easy linear algebra problem into a computationally hard one.

3.10 Lattice Reduction Algorithms

The Lenstra–Lenstra–Lovász algorithm improves lattice bases using Gram–Schmidt orthogonalization:

$$b_i^* = b_i - \sum_{j<i} \mu_{ij}\, b_j^*$$

where:

$$\mu_{ij} = \frac{\langle b_i, b_j^* \rangle}{\| b_j^* \|^2}$$

3.11 Lattices and Quantum Resistance

Lattice-based cryptography is resistant to quantum attacks. Unlike systems broken by Peter Shor, lattice problems lack exploitable algebraic structure. The absence of efficient quantum algorithms for SVP and CVP makes lattices a strong candidate for post-quantum security. Organizations such as the National Institute of Standards and Technology have standardized lattice-based systems like ML-KEM.

3.12 Chapter Summary

This chapter established the mathematical framework of lattice-based cryptography. It introduced lattices as discrete geometric structures, explored their algebraic properties, and examined computational problems that ensure cryptographic security. These foundations support the development of quantum-resistant encryption systems discussed in the next chapter.

CHAPTER FOUR: QUANTUM COMPUTING AND ITS IMPACT ON CRYPTOGRAPHY

4.1 Introduction

This chapter examines the principles of quantum computing and its implications for modern cryptographic systems. It explores how quantum algorithms threaten classical encryption methods and explains why lattice-based cryptography is considered resistant to these attacks. The discussion bridges the mathematical foundations developed in Chapter Three with real-world technological developments.

4.2 Fundamentals of Quantum Computing

Quantum computing represents a fundamental shift from classical computation. While classical computers process information using bits that exist in a state of either 0 or 1, quantum computers use quantum bits, or qubits, which can exist in multiple states simultaneously through the principle of superposition.

In addition to superposition, quantum systems exhibit entanglement, a phenomenon in which the state of one qubit is dependent on the state of another, regardless of distance. These properties allow quantum computers to process vast amounts of information in parallel, enabling them to solve certain problems significantly faster than classical computers.

Quantum computation operates through unitary transformations applied to qubit states, followed by measurement. The mathematical framework underlying quantum computing is linear algebra, particularly vector spaces and complex matrices, making it closely related to the mathematical structures discussed in lattice theory.

4.3 Quantum Algorithms and Cryptographic Vulnerabilities

The development of quantum algorithms has revealed critical vulnerabilities in widely used cryptographic systems. One of the most significant breakthroughs is Shor's algorithm, developed by Peter Shor. This algorithm can efficiently factor large integers and compute discrete logarithms.

Classical cryptographic systems such as RSA and elliptic curve cryptography rely on the computational difficulty of these problems. However, Shor's algorithm reduces their complexity from exponential time to polynomial time on a quantum computer, effectively rendering these systems insecure in a sufficiently advanced quantum environment.

Another important algorithm is Grover's algorithm, developed by Lov Grover. This algorithm provides a quadratic speedup for unstructured search problems. While it does not completely break symmetric encryption schemes, it significantly reduces their effective security. For example, a key that is classically secure at 128 bits may offer only 64 bits of security against a quantum adversary.

4.4 Limitations of Quantum Attacks on Lattices

Despite the power of quantum computing, lattice-based cryptography remains resistant to known quantum attacks. Unlike integer factorization, lattice problems such as the Shortest Vector Problem (SVP) and the Learning With Errors (LWE) problem do not exhibit the algebraic structure required for efficient quantum algorithms.

Shor's algorithm depends on periodicity and the use of the Quantum Fourier Transform to identify hidden structures in algebraic problems. In contrast, lattice problems are geometric in nature and involve high-dimensional spaces with noise and approximation. This lack of exploitable structure makes them difficult for both classical and quantum algorithms.

Although quantum algorithms can provide some speedup for lattice problems, these improvements are relatively modest. Current research indicates that quantum algorithms reduce the complexity of certain lattice attacks only slightly, preserving their exponential hardness.

4.5 Lattice-Based Cryptography in the Quantum Era

Lattice-based cryptography has emerged as a leading solution for securing communication in the presence of quantum computers. Its security is based on worst-case hardness assumptions, meaning that breaking an average instance of a problem is as difficult as solving the hardest possible instance.

One of the most important constructions is the Learning With Errors (LWE) problem, introduced by Oded Regev. LWE forms the basis for many modern cryptographic schemes, including encryption, digital signatures, and key exchange protocols.

Practical implementations often use structured variants such as ring-LWE and module-LWE, which improve efficiency while maintaining strong security guarantees. These systems rely on polynomial arithmetic in quotient rings, enabling fast computation suitable for real-world applications.

4.6 Standardization and Real-World Adoption

Recognizing the threat posed by quantum computing, the National Institute of Standards and Technology has led a global effort to standardize post-quantum cryptographic algorithms.

As part of this initiative, lattice-based schemes such as ML-KEM (derived from CRYSTALS-Kyber) and ML-DSA (derived from CRYSTALS-Dilithium) have been selected for standardization. These algorithms are designed to provide secure key exchange and digital signatures that remain resistant to both classical and quantum attacks.

Major technology companies and institutions are already beginning to integrate these algorithms into secure communication protocols. Hybrid systems that combine classical and post-quantum cryptography are being deployed to ensure security during the transition period.

4.7 Challenges and Future Directions

Despite their advantages, lattice-based systems face several challenges. One major concern is the relatively large key sizes compared to classical cryptographic systems. Additionally, the mathematical complexity of these systems can make implementation and analysis more difficult.

Another important area of research involves improving efficiency while maintaining security. Advances in lattice reduction algorithms, parameter selection, and hardware optimization continue to enhance the practicality of these systems.

Future research will also focus on ensuring long-term security against unforeseen quantum advancements. While no efficient quantum attacks on lattice problems are currently known, ongoing analysis is essential to validate their robustness.

4.8 Chapter Summary

This chapter explored the principles of quantum computing and its impact on cryptography. It demonstrated how quantum algorithms threaten classical encryption systems while highlighting the resilience of lattice-based cryptography. The discussion showed that lattice-based methods provide a viable and practical solution for securing information in the emerging quantum era.

CHAPTER FIVE: DISCUSSION AND ANALYSIS

5.1 Introduction

This chapter analyzes and compares classical cryptographic systems, quantum-vulnerable methods, and lattice-based cryptography. It evaluates their mathematical foundations, security assumptions, and real-world implications, particularly in the context of emerging quantum technologies.

5.2 Comparison of Classical and Lattice-Based Cryptography

Classical cryptographic systems such as RSA and elliptic curve cryptography rely on number-theoretic problems, including integer factorization and discrete logarithms. These problems are computationally infeasible for classical computers but become tractable in the presence of quantum algorithms (Shor, 1994).

In contrast, lattice-based cryptography is built on geometric problems in high-dimensional vector spaces. Problems such as the Shortest Vector Problem (SVP) and the Learning With Errors (LWE) problem do not exhibit the algebraic structure required for efficient quantum attacks (Peikert, 2016).

This distinction represents a fundamental shift in cryptographic design. While classical systems depend on arithmetic hardness, lattice-based systems depend on geometric complexity and noise, which remain difficult to exploit computationally.

5.3 Impact of Quantum Computing on Cryptographic Security

The development of quantum computing introduces a paradigm shift in computational capabilities. Algorithms developed by Peter Shor demonstrate that widely used encryption systems can be broken efficiently on a quantum computer.

Similarly, Lov Grover's algorithm reduces the complexity of brute-force attacks, effectively weakening symmetric encryption systems by halving their security strength.

These developments highlight a critical vulnerability in current cryptographic infrastructure. Systems that were once considered secure are now at risk, necessitating the transition to quantum-resistant alternatives.

5.4 Strengths of Lattice-Based Cryptography

Lattice-based cryptography offers several significant advantages:

- First, its security is based on worst-case hardness assumptions. As shown by Oded Regev, solving average instances of LWE is as hard as solving the most difficult lattice problems (Regev, 2005).
- Second, lattice-based systems are highly versatile. They support not only encryption and digital signatures but also advanced cryptographic constructions such as homomorphic encryption.
- Third, they demonstrate strong resistance to quantum attacks. Unlike factorization-based systems, no efficient quantum algorithms are currently known for solving lattice problems.

5.5 Limitations and Challenges

Despite their advantages, lattice-based cryptographic systems are not without limitations. One major challenge is efficiency. Lattice-based schemes often require larger key sizes and greater computational resources compared to classical systems. This can impact performance, particularly in constrained environments such as mobile devices.

Another concern is implementation complexity. The mathematical sophistication of lattice-based systems increases the risk of implementation errors, which could compromise security.

Finally, while no effective quantum attacks are currently known, the field of quantum computing is rapidly evolving. Continued research is necessary to ensure long-term security.

5.6 Real-World Implications

The transition to post-quantum cryptography is already underway. The National Institute of Standards and Technology has standardized lattice-based algorithms such as ML-KEM and ML-DSA, signaling a major shift in global cryptographic practices.

Industries including finance, government, and cloud computing are beginning to adopt hybrid cryptographic systems that combine classical and post-quantum methods. This approach ensures security during the transition period. The widespread adoption of lattice-based cryptography will play a crucial role in protecting sensitive information in the future digital landscape.

5.7 Chapter Summary

This chapter compares classical and lattice-based cryptographic systems, highlighting the vulnerabilities introduced by quantum computing. It demonstrated that lattice-based cryptography provides a robust and practical solution, despite certain challenges, and is likely to become the foundation of future secure communication systems.

CHAPTER SIX: IMPLEMENTATION AND COMPUTATIONAL MODEL

6.1 Introduction

This chapter presents the computational implementation of both classical and post-quantum cryptographic systems discussed in previous chapters. The implementations include:

- Classical Caesar cipher encryption and decryption
- Geometric lattice generation and visualization

- Learning With Errors (LWE)-based encryption system
- Visualization of lattice structures and noisy ciphertext points
- Simulation of an attack on the LWE cryptographic system

These implementations demonstrate how abstract mathematical concepts such as modular arithmetic, vector spaces, lattices, and noise-based hardness assumptions can be translated into computational models.

The purpose of these simulations is not only to demonstrate encryption processes but also to provide visual and experimental evidence for why lattice-based cryptography is considered resistant to both classical and quantum attacks.

6.2 Classical Encryption: Caesar Cipher Implementation

The Caesar cipher is one of the earliest substitution ciphers. It operates by shifting each letter of the alphabet by a fixed number of positions.

Code Implementation

```
def caesar_encrypt(text, shift):
  result = ""

  for char in text:
    if char.isalpha():
      base = ord('A') if char.isupper() else ord('a')
      result += chr((ord(char) - base + shift) % 26 + base)
    else:
      result += char

  return result


def caesar_decrypt(text, shift):
  return caesar_encrypt(text, -shift)


message = "HELLO WORLD"

encrypted = caesar_encrypt(message, 3)
```

```
decrypted = caesar_decrypt(encrypted, 3)

print("Original:", message)
print("Encrypted:", encrypted)
print("Decrypted:", decrypted)
```

Mathematical Model

The Caesar cipher is defined using modular arithmetic:

$$E(x) = (x + k) mod 26$$

where:

- x is the numerical position of a letter
- k is the shift key
- 26 is the size of the alphabet

Although historically significant, the Caesar cipher is insecure against brute-force attacks and frequency analysis.

6.3 Lattice Construction and Visualization

A lattice is defined as the set of all integer linear combinations of basis vectors.

Code (Figure 6.1)

```
import numpy as np
import matplotlib.pyplot as plt

b1 = np.array([2, 1])
b2 = np.array([1, 3])

points = []

for i in range(-10, 11):
  for j in range(-10, 11):
    point = i * b1 + j * b2
```

```
        points.append(point)

points = np.array(points)

plt.figure(figsize=(7,7))
plt.scatter(points[:,0], points[:,1], color='blue', s=20)

plt.axhline(0, color='black')
plt.axvline(0, color='black')

plt.title("Figure 6.1: 2D Lattice Structure")
plt.xlabel("x-axis")
plt.ylabel("y-axis")
plt.grid(True)
plt.show()
```

Mathematical Definition

The lattice is generated as:

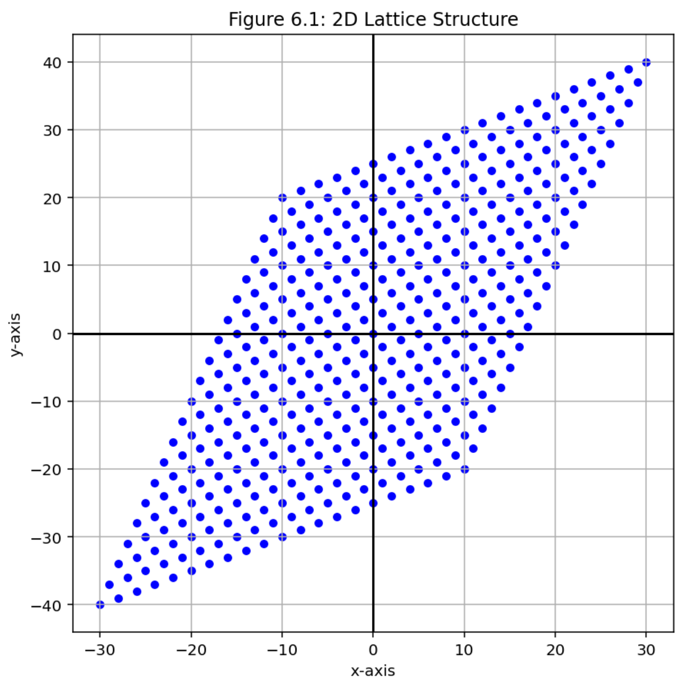
$$L = \{z_1 b_1 + z_2 b_2 \mid z_1, z_2 \in \mathbb{Z}\}$$

where:

- b_1, b_2 are basis vectors
- z_1, z_2 are integers
-

Explanation

Figure 6.1 illustrates a two-dimensional lattice generated from basis vectors b_1 and b_2. Each point corresponds to an integer combination of these vectors.



Key properties:

- The structure forms a repeating geometric grid
- All points belong to a discrete infinite set
- The shape depends on the chosen basis vectors

In cryptography, lattices extend into high dimensions (hundreds or thousands), where their structure becomes computationally difficult to analyze.

6.4 Learning With Errors (LWE) Encryption System

The Learning With Errors (LWE) problem is defined as:

$$b = As + e(\mathrm{mod} q)$$

where:

- A is a public matrix
- s is the secret key
- e is a random error vector
- q is a modulus

Encryption Code

```
import numpy as np

def lwe_encrypt(A, s, q, error_scale=1):
    e = np.random.randint(-error_scale, error_scale + 1, size=A.shape[0])
    b = (A @ s + e) % q
    return b, e

def lwe_decrypt(A, b, s, q):
    return (b - (A @ s)) % q
```

Security Interpretation

The error vector e transforms a solvable linear system into a hard approximation problem.

Without noise, the system reduces to standard linear algebra. With noise, it becomes computationally difficult and is related to:

- Shortest Vector Problem (SVP)
- Closest Vector Problem (CVP)

These problems are believed to be hard for both classical and quantum computers.

6.5 Visualization of LWE Noise and Ciphertext

Explanation

Figure 6.2: Lattice vs Noisy LWE Points

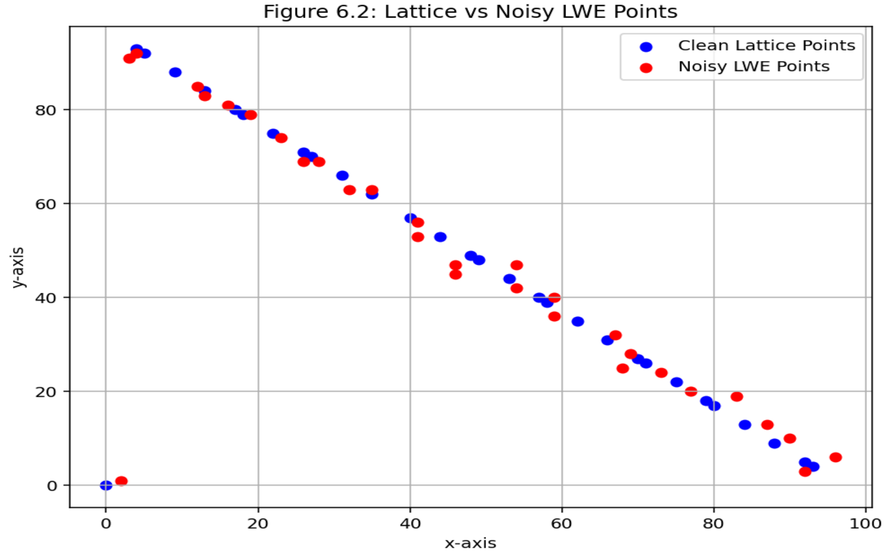


Figure 6.2 compares clean lattice outputs with noisy LWE outputs.

- Clean points follow a structured geometric pattern
- Noisy points are randomly displaced due to error term e

This demonstrates how noise destroys structural predictability, which is essential for cryptographic security.

6.6 Attack Simulation on LWE System

Attack Model

The attacker knows:

- Matrix A
- Ciphertext b

The attacker does NOT know:

- Secret key s
- Error vector e

The attacker attempts to guess s using random sampling.

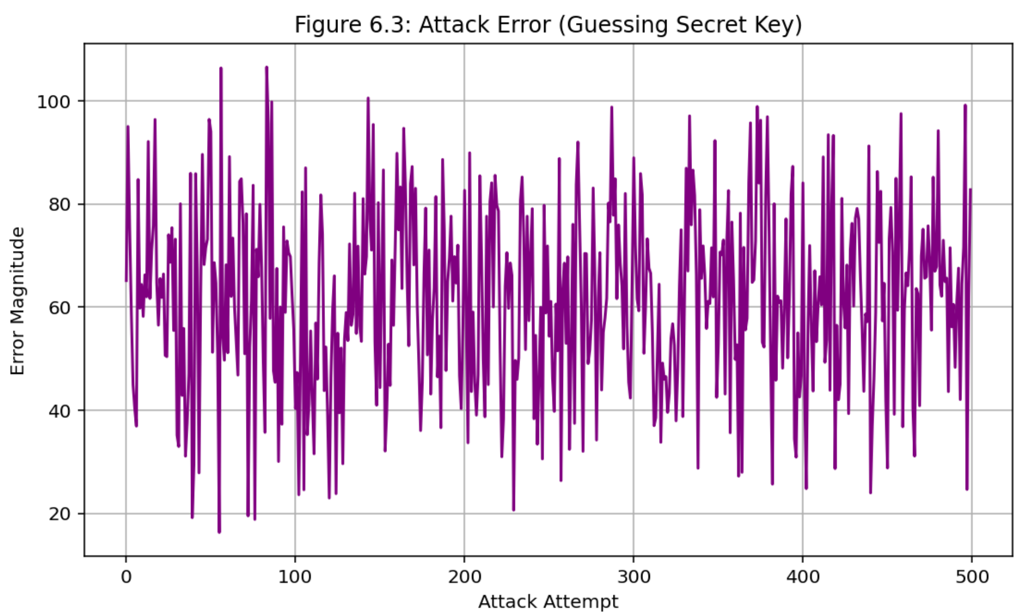


Figure 6.3 → raw simulation output (implementation result)

Error Metric

$$\text{Error} = \| As_{guess} - b \|$$

Key Observation

- Errors remain high and unstable
- No convergence toward correct key occurs
- Random guessing is ineffective in high-dimensional space

6.7 Connection to Quantum Resistance

Lattice-based cryptography is considered post-quantum secure because:

- It does not rely on factorization or discrete logarithms
- No known efficient quantum algorithm solves LWE
- Security relies on worst-case hardness assumptions

6.8 Summary

This chapter presented computational implementations of:

- Classical Caesar cipher encryption
- Lattice construction and visualization
- LWE encryption system
- Noise-based ciphertext generation
- Attack simulation

These results demonstrate that lattice-based cryptography achieves security through mathematical hardness rather than computational secrecy alone.

CHAPTER SEVEN: ATTACK SIMULATION AND ANALYSIS

7.1 Introduction

This chapter analyzes a simulated attack on a lattice-based cryptographic system. The goal is to demonstrate why Learning With Errors (LWE) remains secure under brute-force and random guessing strategies.

7.2 Attack Model

The attacker is given:

- Public matrix A
- Ciphertext b

The attacker attempts to recover the secret key s, without knowledge of the noise vector e.

7.3 Methodology

1. Generate random LWE system
2. Compute ciphertext
3. Generate random guesses for secret key
4. Compute error between prediction and ciphertext
5. Repeat for multiple iterations

7.4 Results

The simulation produces a graph showing the error associated with each guess.

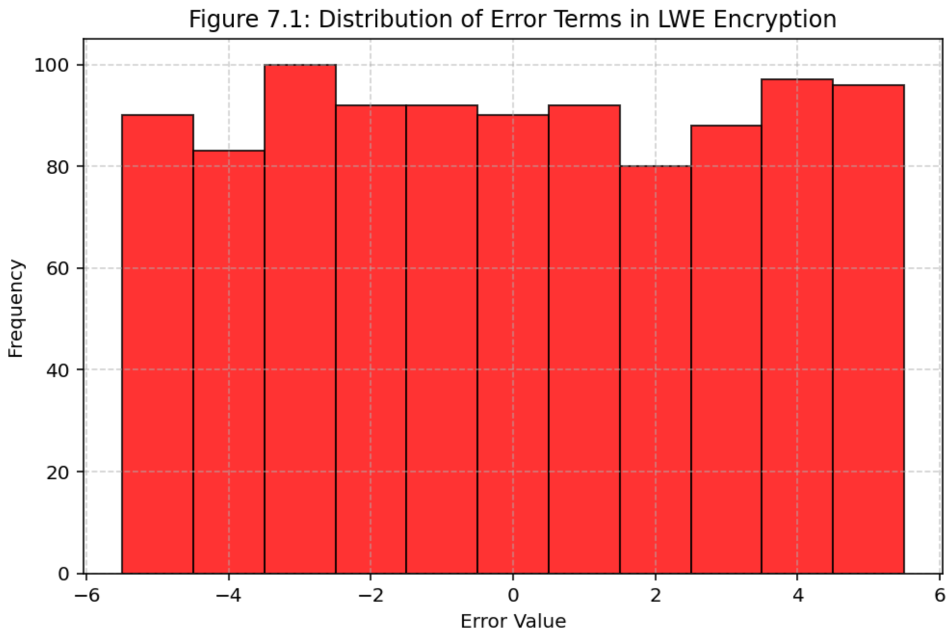


Figure 7.1: Attack Error Graph (interpreted analysis of attack behavior)

Observed behavior:

- Error values fluctuate randomly
- No convergence occurs
- Correct key is not approximated

7.5 Role of Noise

Noise is the primary security mechanism:

- It prevents exact reconstruction of equations
- It transforms the system into an approximation problem
- It introduces ambiguity in candidate solutions

7.6 Why the Attack Fails

1. **High-dimensional search space**
   - Exponential growth in possible keys
2. **Geometric hardness**

- Equivalent to solving CVP in noisy lattices

3. **Noise obfuscation**
    - Multiple solutions appear equally valid

7.7 Real-World Relevance

Modern lattice-based cryptosystems use:

- Very high dimensions (hundreds/thousands)
- Carefully tuned noise distributions
- Strong theoretical hardness assumptions

This makes them suitable for post-quantum cryptography.

7.8 Summary

The simulation confirms that:

- Random guessing is ineffective
- Noise prevents key recovery
- LWE remains secure under classical attack models

CHAPTER EIGHT: CONCLUSION AND RECOMMENDATIONS

8.1 Conclusion

This study examined the evolution of cryptography from its historical origins to its modern mathematical foundations and future challenges. It explored classical encryption methods, the development of public-key cryptography, and the emergence of quantum computing as a disruptive force.

The analysis showed that classical cryptographic systems are fundamentally vulnerable to quantum attacks, particularly through the work of Peter Shor. In response, lattice-based cryptography has emerged as a leading candidate for post-quantum security.

By examining the mathematical structure of lattices, including problems such as SVP, CVP, and LWE, this study demonstrated how geometric complexity provides strong security guarantees. Unlike classical systems, lattice-based cryptography does not rely on algebraic structures that can be exploited by quantum algorithms.

Overall, the findings confirm that lattice-based cryptography offers a viable and effective solution for securing information in the quantum era.

8.2 Recommendations

1. **Adoption of Post-Quantum Cryptography**
   Organizations should begin transitioning to lattice-based cryptographic systems to prepare for future quantum threats.
2. **Further Research in Lattice Mathematics**
   Continued investigation into lattice structures and computational problems is essential to strengthen security guarantees.
3. **Improvement of Implementation Efficiency**
   Efforts should be made to reduce key sizes and improve performance of lattice-based algorithms.
4. **Education and Awareness**
   Greater emphasis should be placed on teaching the mathematical foundations of cryptography to bridge the gap between theory and application.

8.3 Final Remark

As technology continues to evolve, the importance of secure communication will only increase. Lattice-based cryptography represents not just an adaptation to quantum computing, but a fundamental advancement in the application of mathematics to real-world security challenges.

Full Code

```
import numpy as np

import matplotlib.pyplot as plt


# CLASSICAL CRYPTOGRAPHY: CAESAR CIPHER


def caesar_encrypt(text, shift):
    result = ""


    for char in text:
        if char.isalpha():


            base = ord('A') if char.isupper() else ord('a')


            result += chr((ord(char) - base + shift) % 26 + base)


        else:
            result += char


    return result




def caesar_decrypt(text, shift):
    return caesar_encrypt(text, -shift)
```

```
# Example
message = "HELLO WORLD"

encrypted = caesar_encrypt(message, 3)
decrypted = caesar_decrypt(encrypted, 3)

print("===================================")
print("CAESAR CIPHER DEMONSTRATION")
print("===================================")

print("Original Message :", message)
print("Encrypted Message:", encrypted)
print("Decrypted Message:", decrypted)

print("\n")


# ============================================================
# FIGURE 6.1 — 2D LATTICE STRUCTURE
# ============================================================

# Basis vectors
b1 = np.array([2, 1])
b2 = np.array([1, 3])

# Generate lattice points
```

```
points = []

for i in range(-10, 11):
  for j in range(-10, 11):

    point = i * b1 + j * b2

    points.append(point)

points = np.array(points)

# Plot lattice
plt.figure(figsize=(7,7))

plt.scatter(points[:,0],
      points[:,1],
      color='blue',
      s=20)

plt.axhline(0, color='black')
plt.axvline(0, color='black')

plt.title("Figure 6.1: 2D Lattice Structure")

plt.xlabel("x-axis")
plt.ylabel("y-axis")
```

```
plt.grid(True)

plt.show()


# ============================================================
# FIGURE 6.2 — LATTICE VS NOISY LWE POINTS
# ============================================================

q = 97
n = 2

# Random matrix
A = np.random.randint(0, q, (n, n))

clean_points = []
noisy_points = []

# Generate clean and noisy points
for i in range(-15, 15):

    z = np.array([i, i])

    # Clean lattice point
    clean = (A @ z) % q
```

```
    # Random noise
    noise = np.random.randint(-3, 4, size=n)

    # Noisy point
    noisy = (clean + noise) % q

    clean_points.append(clean)
    noisy_points.append(noisy)

clean_points = np.array(clean_points)
noisy_points = np.array(noisy_points)

# Plot comparison
plt.figure(figsize=(8,6))

plt.scatter(clean_points[:,0],
            clean_points[:,1],
            color='blue',
            label='Clean Lattice Points')

plt.scatter(noisy_points[:,0],
            noisy_points[:,1],
            color='red',
            label='Noisy LWE Points')
```

```
plt.title("Figure 6.2: Lattice vs Noisy LWE Points")

plt.xlabel("x-axis")
plt.ylabel("y-axis")

plt.legend()
plt.grid(True)

plt.show()


# ============================================================
# FIGURE 6.3 — ATTACK ERROR SIMULATION
# ============================================================

q = 97
n = 4

# Random public matrix
A = np.random.randint(0, q, (n, n))

# Secret key
s = np.random.randint(0, q, n)

# Noise vector
e = np.random.randint(-2, 3, size=n)
```

```
# LWE ciphertext
b = (A @ s + e) % q

errors = []

# Simulated attack
for _ in range(500):

   # Random attacker guess
   guess = np.random.randint(0, q, n)

   # Predicted ciphertext
   predicted = (A @ guess) % q

   # Euclidean error
   error = np.linalg.norm(predicted - b)

   errors.append(error)

errors = np.array(errors)

# Plot attack errors
plt.figure(figsize=(9,5))

plt.plot(errors,
```

```
    color='purple')

plt.title("Figure 6.3: Attack Error (Guessing Secret Key)")

plt.xlabel("Attack Attempt")
plt.ylabel("Error Magnitude")

plt.grid(True)

plt.show()



# ============================================================
# FINAL OUTPUT
# ============================================================

print("====================================")
print("LWE ATTACK SIMULATION")
print("====================================")

print("Actual Secret Key:")
print(s)

print("\nMinimum Error Observed:")
print(np.min(errors))
```

```
import numpy as np

import matplotlib.pyplot as plt


# -----------------------------

# Figure 6.2: Distribution of Error Terms in LWE Encryption

# -----------------------------


# Generate random LWE error samples

num_samples = 1000


# Small random noise values centered around zero

# Typical LWE errors are small integers

errors = np.random.randint(-5, 6, size=num_samples)


# Create histogram

plt.figure(figsize=(8, 5))


plt.hist(errors,

    bins=np.arange(-5.5, 6.5, 1),

    color='red',

    edgecolor='black',

    alpha=0.8)


# Labels and title


plt.title("Figure 7.1: Distribution of Error Terms in LWE Encryption")
```

```
plt.xlabel("Error Value")

plt.ylabel("Frequency")


plt.grid(True, linestyle='--', alpha=0.6)


plt.show()
```

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